

ments of Israel, and that the Judæan, Samaritan, and Babylonian Israelites forgot old differences in the new enthusiasm. This then was another of those periods of unification which bound together Juda and Samaria.

But our sources fail us, from 515, for the results of this movement. We must pass on to the next chapter in the history as described by *Ezra-Nehemia*, which now introduces to us the figures of the two men whose names are given to that book. The first agitation had failed; the Jews at home were in great distress, the walls of Jerusalem were in ruins (*Neh.* 1,3). The secular ideas of Messianism had proved a failure, the Jews of Palestine had shown themselves incapable of establishing the desired restoration. The ecclesiastics and theologians of Babylonia next took up the forlorn cause; they utterly eschewed politics, except to gain the Persian king's favor. Their aim was to institute a religious community at Jerusalem with sufficient circuit of territory to establish "a state of the Church," over which the ecclesiastical administration could exercise the civil control necessary for its jurisdiction, for religion could not be conceived of except as a civil institution. The guiding-strings of the new administration were to be in the hands of the Gola in Babylonia, for this body alone possessed, in its own conceit at least, and probably actually, the spiritual capacity for the fresh undertaking; moreover it controlled the financial means and the political influence which were prerequisite conditions of success.⁴³ As a corollary, the remnant in Juda would have to submit to all the conditions laid down by the spiritual lords in Mesopotamia; the most essential of these requirements and the one which would prove the most onerous was that which regulated the purity of the holy seed.

⁴³ Ezra's expedition, if its historicity and the Biblical date, 458, be accepted, followed the revolt in Egypt of Inarus in 460, and was commissioned by the royal policy to offset the disaffection in the southwest.

The restoration of the Judæan church as proposed by the Babylonian Diaspora and effectively undertaken by Ezra and Nehemia was ecclesiastical; it was a proposition not of the family of David, nor of the highpriests, for these were likely to be as secular-minded as royalty, but of the doctors of the Tora, whose schools flourished in the new home and produced as their *pièce de résistance* the Law, or at least its first draft in the Priest Code. We can imagine the opposition to this policy produced in the minds of the people in Judæa, the Am-ha-areç or Boors, as they were contemptuously called by the Babylonian exiles.⁴⁴ The majority in any church is worldly-minded, does not easily or for long acquiesce in Puritanism. But now the social liberties of the Palestinians were to be restricted, their franchise in the community reduced to little or nothing. Rebellion to the Babylonian policy, feud between the elements of the community, excommunication of the dissatisfied, — these were the results of the second restoration.

How far "the Law of the Lord which was in the hand of Ezra the scribe" met with success we cannot judge, but that ecclesiastic evidently failed in the matter nearest to his heart. He attacked with burning zeal the practice of intermarriage with the peoples of the lands, requiring that all such unions should be ruthlessly broken. The people seem to have sullenly allowed the appointment of a commission to settle the grievous matter. And then the history abruptly concludes (*Ezra*, 9-10). As Nehemia had to solve the problem afresh, we must conclude that Ezra failed. The ties of humanity outwitted the priest.

Ezra's successor, the governor Nehemia (445-433), was a far more strenuous yet withal more politic ruler. Backed

⁴⁴ The term, which was once simply a social one, "the country-people," may have largely obtained its sinister meaning through confusion with the other, "the peoples of the lands," designating the Gentile colonists; the various texts and versions of *Ezra-Nehemia* evince this confusion in the varying use of the singular and plural.

by the king's commission and the support of his brothers in Babylonia, and relying upon his own strength and conscience, he did not first consult with the dissenting people he came to govern; he acted and ordered, and things were done; those who disobeyed found it wise to leave his jurisdiction, otherwise they were punished or banished. Rigorous as he was, he seems to have proceeded with greater caution in the matter of the mixed marriages, only forbidding such unions in the future (*Neh.* 10). But the cleft made between the factions of the native Jews by Ezra's course was not healed by the governor. Further he had to encounter the united opposition of the peoples of the lands and their ambitious chieftains, who, along with the self-seeking Persian bureaucracy, had everything to lose if a considerable slice of territory and the fair city of Jerusalem were to be excluded from their control and become an aggressive and arrogant *imperium in imperio*.

We learn the names of three of these antagonistic politicians, and hear much of their ways and wiles. There is Sanballat the Horonite, doubtless of the Gentile colonists in Samaria; Tobia, who was closely allied to the Judæan aristocracy and priesthood (6,17ff; 13,4ff), although himself an Ammonite (2,10); and Gashmu the Arabian (2,19; 6,6). These gentry dared not oppose the Persian governor openly; they had resort to ridicule (4,1ff), or attempts at intrigue and assassination (6,1ff, 10ff). But their chief engine for undoing Nehemia's work was the encouragement of the laxer party of the community which opposed the new order of the day. They became the more or less open heads of the revolt which was simmering against the administration. It was not difficult to find allies; apart from the easily persuaded Am-ha-areç, the Hoi Polloi, they had their long-standing connections with the Jewish nobles and priests, in his disruption of which relations Nehemia appeared to the easy-going ones as a meddle-

some innovator. These worldly-minded Jewish aristocrats had doubtless no intention of breaking with the governor, although they hoped to make his position impossible. But those arch-intriguers, particularly the cunning Sanballat, led them farther than they expected. For politics is often the major factor in schism and heresy.

We now come to the climax of the story. Nehemia briefly relates the following anecdote (13,28f): "And one of the sons of Joiada, the son of Eliashib [i. e. the high-priest], the son-in-law of Sanballat, — him I chased from me. Remember them, O God, because of the defilement of the priesthood and of the covenant of the priesthood and the Levites." That is, Sanballat, probably taking advantage of Nehemia's absence (13,6), had formed the bold plan of allying himself with the hierarchy through a union of his daughter with a possible heir to the highpriesthood itself. Sacrilegious as the attempt appeared in Nehemia's eyes, it is but one instance of the countless ambitions which since the days of David to its cessation sullied that high office; Nehemia, not the popular sentiment, expelled the unworthy priestling.

The Old Testament vouchsafes nothing more about this scandal, and in no way connects it with the Samaritan schism. Our authority for such an identification is found solely in Josephus, whose story may be summarized as follows.⁴⁵

The highpriest Eliashib's great-grandson Jaddua finally succeeded to the highpriesthood, and his brother Manasse gained as wife Nikaso, the daughter of one Sanballat. This man had been sent into Samaria by the last Darius (i. e. Codomannus), and was a Kuthite of the same stock as the Samaritans themselves. Sanballat arranged this marriage, recognizing the political importance of Jerusalem, and hoping by the union to gain the goodwill of the Jews.

⁴⁵ *AJ* xi, 7, 2; c. 8.

But the marriage brought upon Manasse the odium of the Jews, who gave him the choice between abdicating his priestly rights and the divorce of his wife. Manasse laid the case before his father-in-law; the latter promised to procure for him the dignity of highpriest and the succession to himself in the governorship of Samaria, also undertaking to build for him a temple upon Gerizim, as soon as the permission of Darius could be secured. Meanwhile many of the priests and Levites in Jerusalem seceded to Manasse, and Sanballat gave them lands in Samaria. The intriguer waited for the outcome of Darius's expedition against the conquering Alexander, and when the former was defeated at Issus, he renounced his liege-lord, and upon Alexander's entrance into Palestine, hastened to the conqueror with the offer of his troops, and gained from him as recompense the boon of building a temple on Gerizim. This construction Sanballat hastily accomplished, but died within nine months, at a good old age. Further dealings of Alexander with the Samaritans are then related.

Josephus thus gives some very exact details concerning the origin of the schism. The recusant priest is named Manasse,⁴⁶ and his wife's name is also given; Sanballat secures the Jewish priest as his daughter's husband, and builds for him a temple on Gerizim. But the cardinal discrepancy lies in this that the date is of the age of Alexander the Great (332), a round century since our encounter with Sanballat in Nehemia's autobiography!

Despite this discrepancy, the identity of the two stories has been generally accepted.⁴⁷ There could hardly have

⁴⁶ It is the tradition of this name that suggested the Massoretic change of Moses into Manasse in *Ju.* 18, 30; see Moore, *ad loc.*

⁴⁷ E. g. by Wellhausen, *Israelitische und jüdische Geschichte*⁴, 180. However, especially by reason of the exigency felt by some critics for a later dating of the codification of the Pentateuch than the age of Nehemia, several recent discussions accept Josephus's date and hold that Josephus has unwarrantably combined with this history the story of the highpriest's grandson in *Neh.* See Steuernagel, *Einleitung in*

been two Sanballats in succeeding centuries, each of whom married his daughter to a member of the highpriestly family, an offence in each case visited with excommunication. In our piecing of the two stories together, we find a very brief statement from Nehemia's pen of an event which belonged to his immediate cognizance, while Josephus adds to this some details, and contributes the important key to the story that the Samaritan schism grew out of the affair. Two pertinent questions may be asked. First: Why did not Nehemia narrate the fatal sequel? But then how many important things are omitted in the Scripture history! And further the consummation of the schism may not have ensued for years after. The other question is, Why did Josephus err so sadly in his dates? The answer to this is, in the first place, that Josephus, like all Jewish literature of antiquity, is absolutely irresponsible in Persian history and chronology, and as the Ezra books name no Persian king between Artaxerxes I. and the last Darius, he ignored the suppression of a century which he was perpetrating.⁴⁸ In the second place the story of the origin of the Samaritan schism has been drawn into the great vortex of the Alexander Legend. The age of the Conqueror is the one bright point in the reminiscences of the ancient world, and was a shining mark for the art of legend-manufacture. Just as the Jews had their legend concerning Alexander's favor to Jerusalem, so the Samaritans told their fables concerning his connection with their sect and temple; probably in this point Josephus was depending upon some Samaritan tradi-

das Pentateuch, 276, and Bertholet's review in *Theologische Literaturzeitung*, 1901, Sp. 188. Hölscher, *op. cit.* 37, takes the ground that the datum in *Neh.* has nothing to do with the Samaritan schism, while Josephus's story is an unhistorical Midrash on that passage, the schism taking place later in the Greek period.

⁴⁸ Josephus's arrangement of Persian history can be observed in the way in which he constructs the Persian dynasty from the Greek *Esdra*s; thus as the latter names as the second Persian monarch Artaxerxes, Josephus identifies him with Cambyses.

tion, which he, or rather the legend-cycle which he followed, brought into connection with the history of Sanballat.⁴⁹ It may be argued that the rejection of part of Josephus's story condemns it all; but there is generally some fact in fiction, and it is safer for criticism to save whatever is possible out of the ruins.

If this combination of the passage in Nehemia and the story given by Josephus be allowed, there still remain many questions for the answers to which no data exist, so that only a speculative reconstruction is possible. The malcontents in the Jewish community in Palestine were now reinforced by a serious defection in the hierarchy; moreover they had the powerful assistance of political magnates who were ready to manipulate religious feud for private ends. From the dependence which the separated faction ever afterwards exhibited upon the spiritual primacy of Jerusalem, it appears that the crystallization of the dissenters into an independent sect was due rather to their excommunication by the Jewish church than to their own will. But driven out and held aloof by Nehemia's strong will and policy, as long as this continued the policy of subsequent administrations, the separatists were forced for religion's sake as well as for self-preservation to establish an organization with an independent cult. While the party had its followers in

⁴⁹ Another Jewish tradition has it that the famous Simon the Just (*circa* 200) was the contemporary of Alexander; *i. e.*, Josephus's line of legend took for its hero the last Biblical highpriest, while another line took the most famous priest in the Greek period. Josippon ben Gorion makes the highpriest Onias his contemporary. It is impossible to discuss here the Jewish chapter in the Alexander Romance. The argument for its historical worthlessness is well summed up by Niese, *Griechische Geschichte*, i, 83. On the other side see Heinichsen, *Das Verhältniss der Juden zu Alexander dem Grossen*, *Theol. Studien und Kritiken*, 1871, p. 458; Mahaffy, *Empire of the Ptolemies*, 85. The Samaritan chronicles draw all their material on the subject from Jewish legend, and have absolutely no independent historical information; only the history is more terribly mixed up than in the Jewish stories, for Sanballat and Zerubbabel appear as adversaries before Nebuchadrezzar, *Lib. Jos.* 45. According to *Chron. Neub.* 438, the Samaritan highpriest at this time was Hezekia.

Jerusalem and throughout Juda, the erection of a new sanctuary on Judæan soil was impracticable, even impossible, as long as the Jews stood well in the royal favor. The land of Samaria however was independent of all Jewish jurisdiction; here a home offered itself through the political favor of the political leaders and officials of that district, who were bent on doing mischief to Jerusalem and its church. Here too, if Jerusalem was out of the question, could be found a fitting sanctuary, for Samaria possessed most of the traditional sacred sites of Israel's history. Bethel lay too near Jerusalem. But Shechem, always an open town to foreigners in ancient times, offered itself, perhaps contained many of the dissident faction. Its ancient and sacred highplace again became an Israelitish sanctuary, the centre of the cult of the new sect. The people came generally to be known as Samaritans, or by a more appropriate geographical designation used by Josephus, as Shechemites. In their own conceit they called themselves Israel, leaving the name Jews to their opponents, thus perpetuating in word at least the ancient primacy of Joseph over Juda.⁵⁰

With regard to the Samaritan temple, it is now very generally considered that there is a distinct Biblical reference to it in the *Deutero-* or rather *Trito-Isaia*. The passage in question is *Is.* 66, 1: "Thus says Yahwe: Heaven is my throne, and the earth is my footstool. What manner of house will you build me, and what place shall be my rest?" The would-be builders of this house of Yahwe are then associated with the participants in the abominable cults which are described in 65, 1ff, and would be the same as the bastard-brood of 57, 3ff. Accordingly the original Samaritan temple was one devoted to polytheism and various obscene rituals. Despite the assent that has been

⁵⁰ See Additional Note B.